

Machine learning

Probabilistic graphical models

Thomas D. Nielsen

Probabilistic modeling: Recap from last time

Probabilistic graphical models (PGMs): syntax

Let $X_1, \dots, X_n$ be a collection of random variables. A PGM over $X_1, \dots, X_n$ consists of

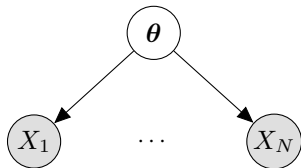
- a directed acyclic graph $\mathcal{G} = \{\mathcal{V}, \mathcal{E}\}$ whose nodes $\mathcal{V}$ are the variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$
- a set of local conditional distributions, $\mathcal{P} = \{p(X_i \mid \text{pa}(X_i)), X_i \in \mathcal{V}\}$, where $\text{pa}(X_i)$ are the parents of X_i in $\mathcal{G}$ as defined by the edges $\mathcal{E}$.

Probabilistic graphical models: semantics

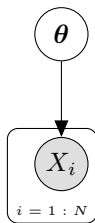
A PGM $\mathcal{N}$ with nodes $X_1, \dots, X_n$ defines a joint distribution

$$p_{\mathcal{N}}(X_1, \dots, X_n) = \prod_{i=1}^n p(X_i \mid \text{pa}(X_i))$$

Two representations of a graphical model for N independent thumbtack tosses:



Unfolded notation



$$\theta \sim \text{Beta}(2, 5)$$

$$\theta \sim p(X_i = 1 | \theta) = \theta$$

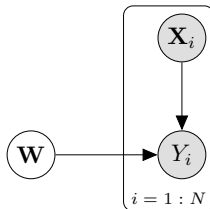
Plate notation

The idea is to avoid repeated substructures

Example

Probabilistic modeling

- Specify prior beliefs
- Provide a probabilistic description/explanation of how the data is generated



(Bayesian) linear regression model

- Only structure specified (using plate notation)

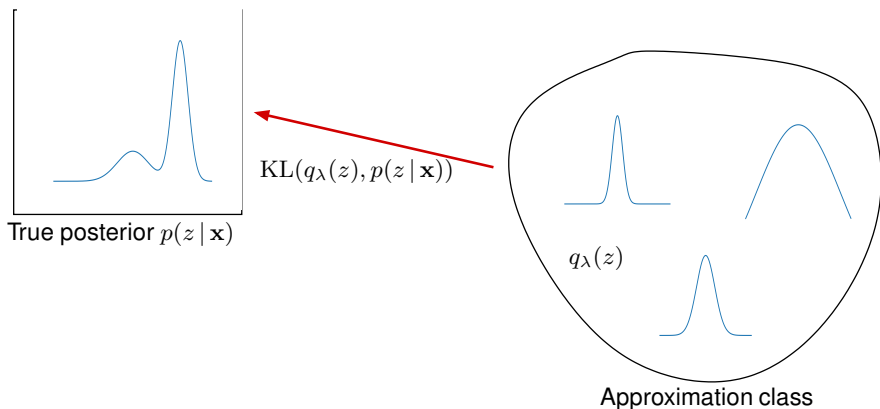
Bayes' rule Bayes' rule illustrates some of the inference problems we face:

$$\text{Posterior } p(\mathbf{W} | \mathbf{y}, \mathbf{x}) = \frac{\text{Likelihood } p(\mathbf{y} | \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{W}) \text{ Prior } p(\mathbf{W})}{\text{Marginal likelihood/model evidence } \int p(\mathbf{y}, \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{W}) d\mathbf{W}}$$

Approximate inference: Variational inference

What is variational inference?

We will approximate the true posterior distribution $p(z | \mathbf{x})$ with a **variational distribution** belonging to a tractable family of distributions.



Task: Fit the variational parameters λ so that the 'distance' $KL(q_\lambda(z), p(z | \mathbf{x}))$ is minimized:

$$\hat{q}(z) = \arg \min_{\lambda} KL(q_\lambda(z), p(z | \mathbf{x}))$$

The KL divergence

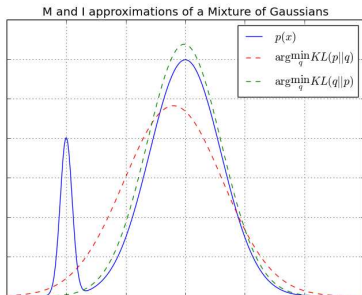
The KL-divergence:

$$\text{KL}(f||g) = \int_{\mathbf{z}} f(\mathbf{z}) \log \left(\frac{f(\mathbf{z})}{g(\mathbf{z})} \right) d\mathbf{z} = \mathbb{E}_f \left[\log \left(\frac{f(\mathbf{z})}{g(\mathbf{z})} \right) \right].$$

is *not* symmetric ($\text{KL}(f||g) \neq \text{KL}(g||f)$ in general). In variational inference we focus on $\text{KL}(q||p)$:

$$\hat{q}(z) = \arg \min_{\lambda} \text{KL}(q_{\lambda}(z), p(z | \mathbf{x}))$$

Example



The **complex distribution** p is approximated by a simpler **variational distribution** q .

We can rearrange the KL divergence as follows:

$$\text{KL} (q(\mathbf{z})||p(\mathbf{z} | \mathbf{x})) \quad = \quad \mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{q(\mathbf{z})}{p(\mathbf{z} | \mathbf{x})} \right]$$

We can rearrange the KL divergence as follows:

$$\begin{aligned}\text{KL}(q(\mathbf{z})||p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x})) &= \mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{q(\mathbf{z})}{p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x})} \right] \\ &= \mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{q(\mathbf{z}) \cdot p(\mathbf{x})}{p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x}) \cdot p(\mathbf{x})} \right]\end{aligned}$$

ELBO: Evidence Lower-BOund

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where $\mathcal{L}(q) = -\mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{q(\mathbf{z})}{p(\mathbf{z},\mathbf{x})} \right]$ is the so-called Evidence Lower Bound (ELBO)

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VI focuses on the ELBO:

$$\log p(\mathbf{x}) = \mathcal{L}(q) + \text{KL}(q(\mathbf{z})||p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x}))$$

Since $\log p(\mathbf{x})$ is constant wrt. q and $\text{KL}(q(\mathbf{z})||p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x})) \geq 0$ it follows:

- We can minimize $\text{KL}(q(\mathbf{z})||p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x}))$ by maximizing $\mathcal{L}(q)$
- This is **computationally simpler** because it uses $p(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})$ instead of $p(\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{x})$.
- $\mathcal{L}(q)$ is a *lower bound* of the marginal data log likelihood $\log p(\mathbf{x})$.

↪ During inference, we will look for $\hat{q}(\mathbf{z}) = \arg \max_{q \in \mathcal{Q}} \mathcal{L}(q)$.

The mean field assumption

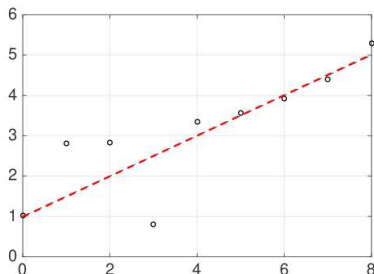
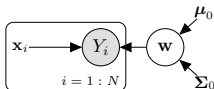
We will often use the **mean field assumption**, which states that $\mathcal{Q}$ consists of all distributions that *factorizes* according to the equation

$$q(\mathbf{z}) = \prod_i q_i(z_i)$$

Note! This may seem like a very restricted set. However, we can choose any $q(\mathbf{z}) \in \mathcal{Q}$, and this is how the magic ($\sim$ “absorbing information from $\mathbf{x}$ ”) happens.

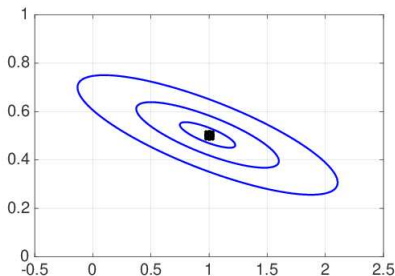
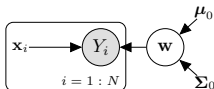
Simple example:

- Regression model:
 $Y_i \mid \{\mathbf{w}, \mathbf{x}_i\} = \mathbf{w}^\top \mathbf{x}_i + \epsilon_i$.
 - For notational convenience we write $\mathbf{x}_i$ for $[1, x_i]^\top$, x_i is a scalar.
- $\epsilon \sim N(0, 1/\gamma)$; γ known.
- $\mathbf{w} \sim \mathcal{N}(\boldsymbol{\mu}_0 = \mathbf{0}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_0 = \mathbf{I}_{2 \times 2})$.



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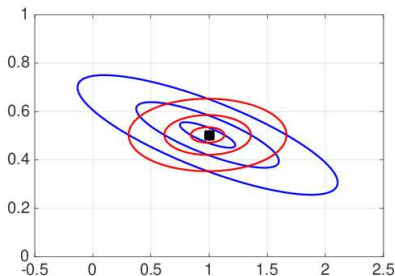
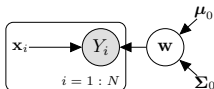
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- The **exact Bayesian solution**

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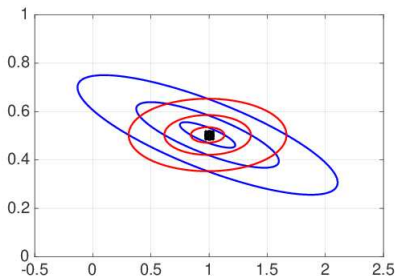
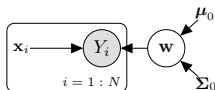
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- The **exact Bayesian solution**
- The **variational solution** w/ mean field.

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- The **exact Bayesian solution**
- The **variational solution** w/ mean field.

Observations

- The **VB-MF** solution approximates the mean of the **true posterior** well.
- **VB-MF** totally disregards correlation between W_1 and W_2 .
- **VB-MF** under-estimates the uncertainty of the **true posterior**, as shown by the 10%, 50% and 90% credibility intervals.

The ELBO (rewritten)

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{L}(q) &= -\mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{q(\mathbf{z})}{p(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})} \right] = \mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{p(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})}{q(\mathbf{z})} \right] \\ &= \underbrace{\mathbb{E}_q [\log p(\mathbf{x} | \mathbf{z})]}_{\text{Reconstruction term}} - \underbrace{KL(q(\mathbf{z}), p(\mathbf{z}))}_{\text{Penalty term}}\end{aligned}$$

Interpreting the bound

- Reconstruction term: The expected log-likelihood measuring how well samples from $q(\mathbf{z})$ explains the data $\mathbf{x}$.
- Penalty term: Penalizes large deviations between $q(\mathbf{z})$ and the prior $p(\mathbf{z})$. Can be interpreted as a form of regularization.

Bayesian learning using variational inference:

- We posit a model $p(\mathbf{y} \mid \boldsymbol{\theta})$, and want to learn $\boldsymbol{\theta}$ from a data-set $\mathcal{D} = \{\mathbf{y}_1, \dots, \mathbf{y}_N\}$.
- We cast the problem in a Bayesian setting by including a prior $p(\boldsymbol{\theta})$.
- We seek the posterior $p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathcal{D})$, which is approximated by

$$\hat{q}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \arg \min_{q \in \mathcal{Q}} \text{KL} (q(\boldsymbol{\theta}) \parallel p(\boldsymbol{\theta} \mid \mathcal{D})) .$$

- This is identical to maximizing $\mathcal{L}(q)$ – a lower-bound of $p(\mathcal{D})$.

- Approximate inference can be seen as *optimization*, where we look for a “simple” distribution $q(\mathbf{z})$ that is close to a “difficult” distribution $p(\mathbf{z} | \mathbf{x})$.
- First we define a class $\mathcal{Q}$ of functions that are considered simple. In particular the *mean-field* assumption focus on distributions that *factorize*:

$$q(\mathbf{z}) = \prod_i q_i(z_i | \lambda_i).$$

- In VB, parameters for each q_i are chosen to minimize $\text{KL}(q||p)$.
- Practically we define the Evidence Lower Bound (ELBO),

$$\mathcal{L}(q) = -\mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{q(\mathbf{z})}{p(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})} \right],$$

and look for $\hat{q}(\mathbf{z}) = \arg \max_{q \in \mathcal{Q}} \mathcal{L}(q)$.

Black Box Variational Inference

VI inference as optimization

We can minimize (improve the variational approximation)

$$\text{KL}(q_{\lambda}(z), p(z \mid \mathbf{x}))$$

by maximizing the ELBO

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The mean field assumption

Again, we will use the **mean field assumption**, which states that $\mathcal{Q}$ consists of all distributions that *factorizes* according to the equation

$$q(\mathbf{z}) = \prod_i q_i(z_i)$$

↪ we can treat the variables independently.

Vanilla black box variational inference

Algorithm: Maximize $\mathcal{L}(q) = \mathbb{E}_{q_\lambda} \left[\log \frac{p_\theta(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})}{q_\lambda(\mathbf{z})} \right]$ by gradient ascent

- Initialization:
 - $t \leftarrow 0$;
 - $\hat{\lambda}_0 \leftarrow$ random initialization;
- Repeat until negligible improvement in terms of $\mathcal{L}(q)$:
 - $t \leftarrow t + 1$;
 - $\hat{\lambda}_t \leftarrow \hat{\lambda}_{t-1} + \rho_t \nabla_\lambda \mathcal{L}(q)|_{\hat{\lambda}_{t-1}}$;

Note: We use λ to refer to the parameters of the variational distribution $q_\lambda(\mathbf{z})$.

The algorithm requires that we can find

$$\nabla_{\lambda} \mathcal{L}(q) = \nabla_{\lambda} \mathbb{E}_q \left[\log \frac{p_{\theta}(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})}{q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z})} \right].$$

With a bit of pencil pushing we end up with

$$\nabla_{\lambda} \mathcal{L}(q) = \mathbb{E}_{q_{\lambda}} \left[\log \frac{p_{\theta}(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})}{q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z})} \cdot \nabla_{\lambda} \log q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z}) \right],$$

which turns out to be easier to evaluate.

$$\nabla_{\lambda} \mathcal{L}(q) = \mathbb{E}_{q_{\lambda}} \left[\log \frac{p_{\theta}(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})}{q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z} | \boldsymbol{\lambda})} \cdot \nabla_{\lambda} \log q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z} | \boldsymbol{\lambda}) \right].$$

Calculating the gradient – Things to notice

- We only need access to the un-normalized $p_{\theta}(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{x})$ – not $p_{\theta}(\mathbf{z} | \mathbf{x})$.

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- $q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z})$ factorizes under MF, s.t. we can optimize per variable: $q_{\lambda_i}(z_i)$.

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- We must calculate $\nabla_{\lambda} \log q(\mathbf{z} | \boldsymbol{\lambda})$, which is also known as the “score function”.

Example

If $q_{\boldsymbol{\lambda}}(z)$ follows a normal distribution ($\boldsymbol{\lambda} = (\mu, \sigma)$):

$$\frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi}\sigma^2} \exp \left(-\frac{(z - \mu)^2}{2\sigma^2} \right),$$

then

$$\nabla_{\mu} \log q_{\boldsymbol{\lambda}}(z) = \frac{1}{\sigma^2}(z - \mu)$$

Calculating the gradient – Things to notice

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- The expectation will be approximated using a sample $\{\mathbf{z}_1, \dots, \mathbf{z}_M\}$ generated from $q(\mathbf{z} | \lambda)$. Hence we require that we can **sample from** $q_{\lambda_i}(\cdot)$.

Calculating the gradient – Things to notice

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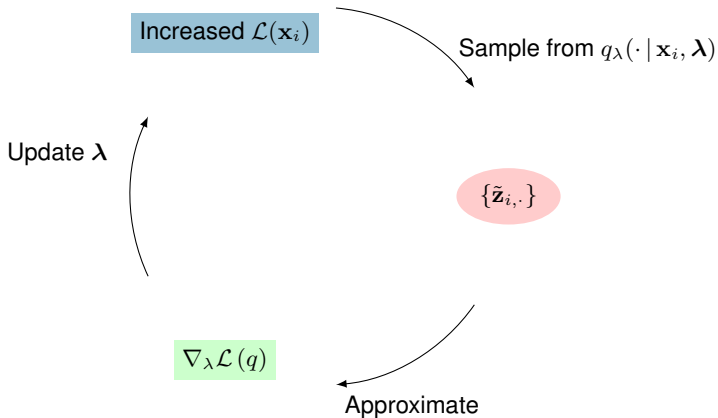
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Calculating the gradient – in summary

We have observed the datapoint $\mathbf{x}$, and our current estimate for λ_i is $\hat{\lambda}_i$. Then

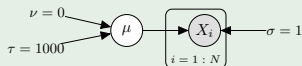
$$\nabla_{\lambda_i} \mathcal{L}(q)|_{\lambda=\hat{\lambda}_i} \approx \frac{1}{M} \sum_{j=1}^M \log \frac{p(z_{i,j}, \mathbf{x})}{q(z_{i,j} | \hat{\lambda}_i)} \cdot \nabla_{\lambda_i} \log q_i(z_{i,j} | \hat{\lambda}_i).$$

where $\{z_{i,1}, \dots, z_{i,M}\}$ are samples from $q_{\lambda_i}(\cdot | \hat{\lambda}_i)$.



Example model

We assume a simple generative model:

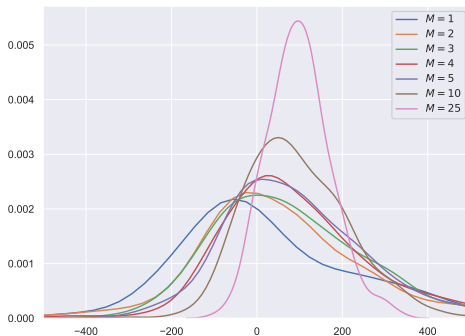


Now, data is generated using $\mu = 10$, we assume a variational model with $q(\mu | \lambda) = \mathcal{N}(\lambda, 1)$ and want to maximize the ELBO wrt. the posterior mean for μ in the variational formulation.

student_BBVI.ipynb

BBVI in Python – Evaluating the results

PDF for the gradient calculated at $\lambda = 9$, which is below the optimum ≈ 10 . Several values for M , the sample size used to generate the estimate, are shown.



- Since the gradient estimate is based on a random sample, it is meaningful to evaluate the estimators' "robustness" in terms of a density function.
- We would hope to see robust estimates, also for small M , and in particular high probability for moving in the correct direction (gradient larger than 0).
- This is not the case, which has led to a major focus on **variance reduction techniques**: while important we will **not cover them here**.

Probabilistic Programming Languages: Another look

Pyro

Pyro (pyro.ai) is a Python library for probabilistic modeling, inference, and criticism, integrated with PyTorch.

- Modeling:**
 - Directed graphical models
 - Neural networks (via libraries such as `nn.Module`)
 - ...
- Inference:**
 - Variational inference – including BBVI
 - Monte Carlo – including Gibbs, Hamiltonian Monte Carlo
 - ...
- Criticism:**
 - Point-based evaluations
 - Posterior predictive checks
 - ...

... and there are also many other possibilities

Tensorflow, Edward, InferPy, etc.

Simple example

temp $\sim \mathcal{N}(15, 2)$

sensor $\sim \mathcal{N}(\text{temp}, 1)$

$p(\text{sensor} = 18, \text{temp})$

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Pyro models:

- random variables $\Leftrightarrow$ `pyro.sample`
- observations $\Leftrightarrow$ `pyro.sample` with the `obs` argument

Simple example

$$\begin{aligned}\text{temp} &\sim \mathcal{N}(15, 2) \\ \text{sensor} &\sim \mathcal{N}(\text{temp}, 1) \\ p(\text{sensor} = 18, \text{temp})\end{aligned}$$

Pyro models:

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```
1 #The observations
2 obs = {'sensor': torch.tensor(18.0)}
3
4 def model(obs):
5     temp = pyro.sample('temp', dist.Normal(15.0, 2.0))
6     sensor = pyro.sample('sensor', dist.Normal(temp, 1.0), obs=obs['sensor'])
```


Inference Problem

$$p(\text{temp} | \text{sensor} = 18)$$

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Variational Solution

$$\min_{\textcolor{red}{q}} \text{KL}(\textcolor{red}{q}(\text{temp})||p(\text{temp}|\text{sensor} = 18))$$

Inference Problem

$$p(\text{temp}|\text{sensor} = 18)$$

Variational Solution

$$\min_{\underset{q}{}} \text{KL} (q(\text{temp}) || p(\text{temp}|\text{sensor} = 18))$$

Pyro Guides:

- Defines the q **distributions** in variational settings.

Pyro Guides:

- Guides are **arbitrary stochastic functions**.
- Guides produces samples for those variables of the model which are **not observed**.

Example

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```
1 #The guide
2 def guide(obs):
3     a = pyro.param("mean", torch.tensor(0.0))
4     b = pyro.param("scale", torch.tensor(1.), constraint=constraints.positive)
5     temp = pyro.sample('temp', dist.Normal(a, b))
```

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3
4 def model(obs):
5     temp = pyro.sample('temp', dist.Normal(15.0, 2.0))
6     sensor = pyro.sample('sensor', dist.Normal(temp, 1.0), obs=obs['sensor'])
```

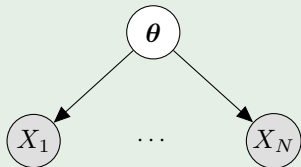
```
1 #The guide
2 def guide(obs):
3     a = pyro.param("mean", torch.tensor(0.0))
4     b = pyro.param("scale", torch.tensor(1.), constraint=constraints.positive)
5     temp = pyro.sample('temp', dist.Normal(a, b))
```

Guide requirements

- 1 the guide has the same input signature as the model
- 2 all unobserved sample statements that appear in the model appear in the guide.

Example model

We consider again our simple generative model for thumb tack tosses:



Unfolded notation

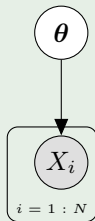


Plate notation

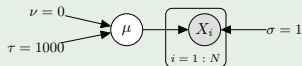
$$\theta \sim \text{Beta}(2, 5)$$

$$\theta \sim p(X_i = 1 \mid \theta) = \theta$$

thumb_tack.ipynb

Exercise

We assume a simple generative model:



Data is generated using $\mu = 10$, we assume a variational model with $q(\mu | \lambda) = \mathcal{N}(\lambda, 1)$, and want to maximize the ELBO wrt. the posterior mean for μ in the variational formulation.

mean_inference.ipynb

Conclusions

Variational inference: VI is a deterministic alternative to sampling for **approximate inference in Bayesian models**.

- VI seeks the model $q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z})$ inside a family of applicable models $\mathcal{Q}$ that is closest to the (unattainable) posterior $p(\mathbf{z} | \mathbf{x})$ in terms of a Kullback Leibler divergence.
- Depending on $\mathcal{Q}$, we can assert efficient inference – a very common choice is the **mean field assumption**:

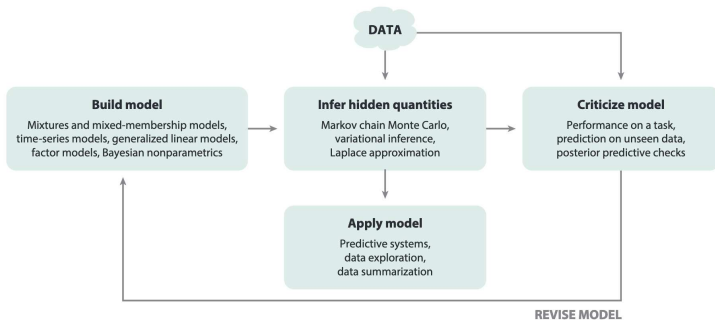
$$q_{\lambda}(\mathbf{z}) = \prod_i q_{\lambda_i}(z_i).$$

- Black box variational inference:**
- The goal is to obtain **efficient** inference in **unconstrained** Bayesian network models – any structure, any combination of distributional families.
 - **Black-Box** Variational Inference promises VB inference in any model, but at the cost that inference relies on sampling – and it sometimes shows poor converge properties in practice.

Probabilistic Programming Languages: PPLs are programming languages to describe probabilistic models and perform inference in them.

- Pyro is a PPL built on top of PyTorch, and which supports several inference techniques, including BBVI, SVI, MCMC.
- Several other alternatives exist as well (Edward, Stan, JAGS, InferPy...)

Box's loop



Build, Compute, Critique, Repeat: Data Analysis with Latent Variable Models by David M. Blei